

ECE 3337: Signals & Systems Analysis

Lecture 8: Linear Time Invariant Systems

**Reference: Chapter 2
(Sections 2-6 and 2-7)**

Please turn off your gadgets now

Math Moment: The Triangle Inequality

$$|a + b| \leq |a| + |b|$$

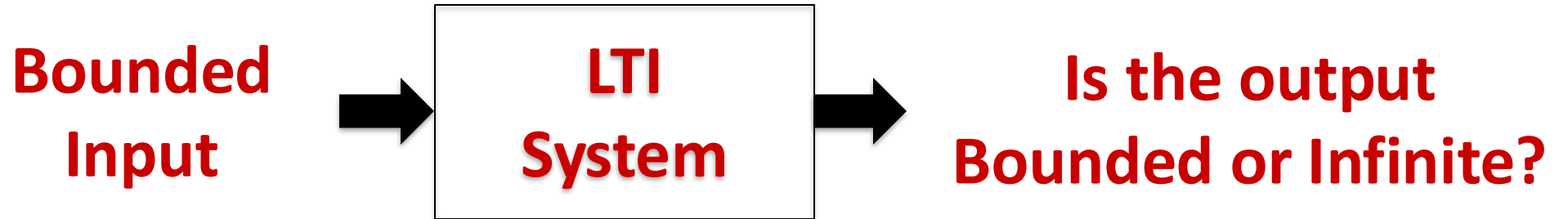
Works for all real numbers

Also works for integrals, for example:

$$|y(t)| = \left| \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) x(t - \tau) d\tau \right| \leq \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |h(\tau) x(t - \tau)| d\tau$$



New Concept: System Stability



As engineers, we are always interested in building stable systems (basically, systems that do not blow up!)

Basic Question: Can the output of the system go to infinity (unbounded) when a bounded input signal is applied?



Bounded Signals

A signal is said to be bounded if there is a constant and finite upper bound C so that:

$$|x(t)| \leq C \text{ for all } t$$

Examples of Bounded Signals (what are the bounds?):

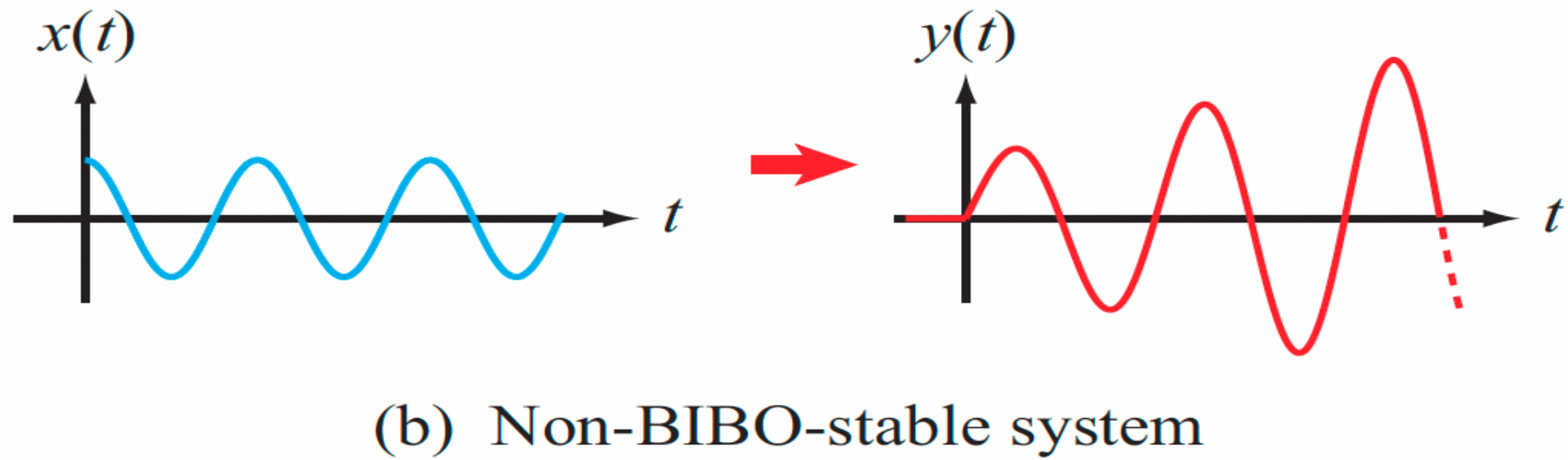
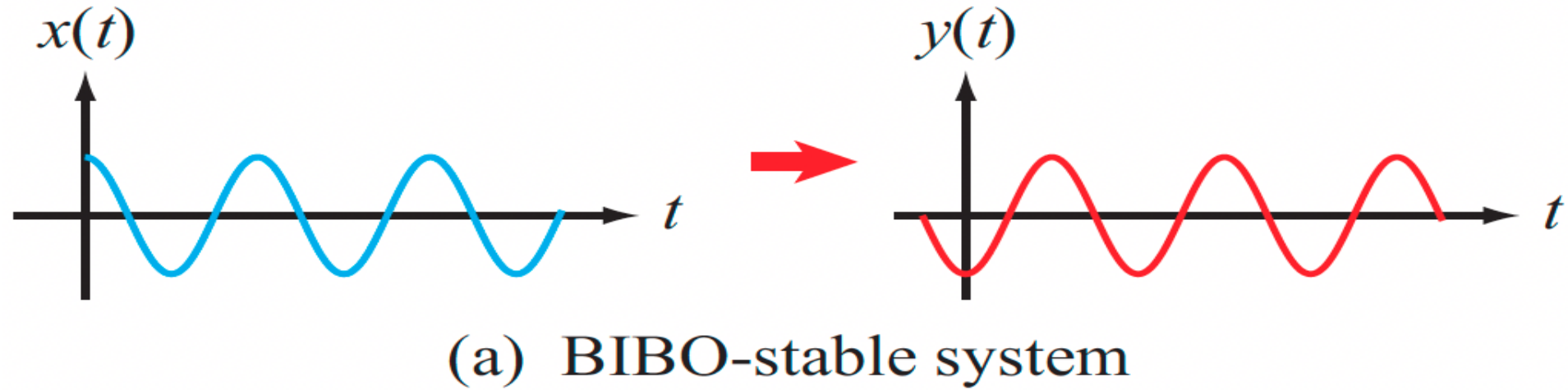
$$\cos(3t), \quad 7e^{-2t}u(t), \quad e^{2t}u(1-t)$$

Examples of Unbounded Signals

$$t^2, \quad e^{2t}u(t), \quad e^{-t}, \quad 1/t$$



Example





How is That Even Possible?



A bounded input can indeed result in an unbounded output

- Intuitively, this can happen when the energy in the bounded signal accumulates over time to create an unbounded output
 - E.g., a unit step or a sinusoidal input is bounded but carries infinite energy, so there is potential for an unbounded output
- **It can also happen when the output contains momentary spikes (delta functions)**



BIBO Stability of a System



Stability in the Bounded Input Bounded Output (BIBO) sense:

- If the output is bounded (i.e., has a finite upper bound for every bounded input signal (no exceptions!)), the system is said to be BIBO Stable
- Conversely, if the system generates an unbounded output for even one input waveform, it is not considered BIBO stable



Example of BIBO Unstable System

$$y(t) = \int_{-\infty}^t x(\tau) d\tau \quad \text{INTEGRATOR}$$

Let's try the bounded "test" input $x(t) = u(t)$, then

$$y(t) = \int_{-\infty}^t u(\tau) d\tau = \int_0^t u(\tau) d\tau = tu(t) \quad \begin{array}{l} \text{THIS IS UNBOUNDED} \\ \Rightarrow \text{NOT BIBO STABLE} \end{array}$$

Intuitively, systems that endlessly accumulate signal energy over time are often BIBO unstable



Another Example of BIBO Unstable System

$$y(t) = \frac{dx(t)}{dt}$$

Let's try the bounded "test" input $x(t) = u(t)$, then

$$y(t) = \delta(t)$$

**THIS IS UNBOUNDED
⇒ NOT BIBO STABLE**

Abruptly changing (bounded) test signals can often reveal BIBO Instability



BIBO Stability Testing

$$x(t) = \delta(t) \times (\text{UNBOUNDED})$$

$$x(t) = u(t)$$

$$x(t) = \cos(\omega t)$$

The unit step and sinusoid are great signals for BIBO Stability Testing

- They are finite in terms of amplitude, but carry an infinite amount of energy that can accumulate over time to create an unbounded output
- The unit step also has an abrupt change at $t = 0$



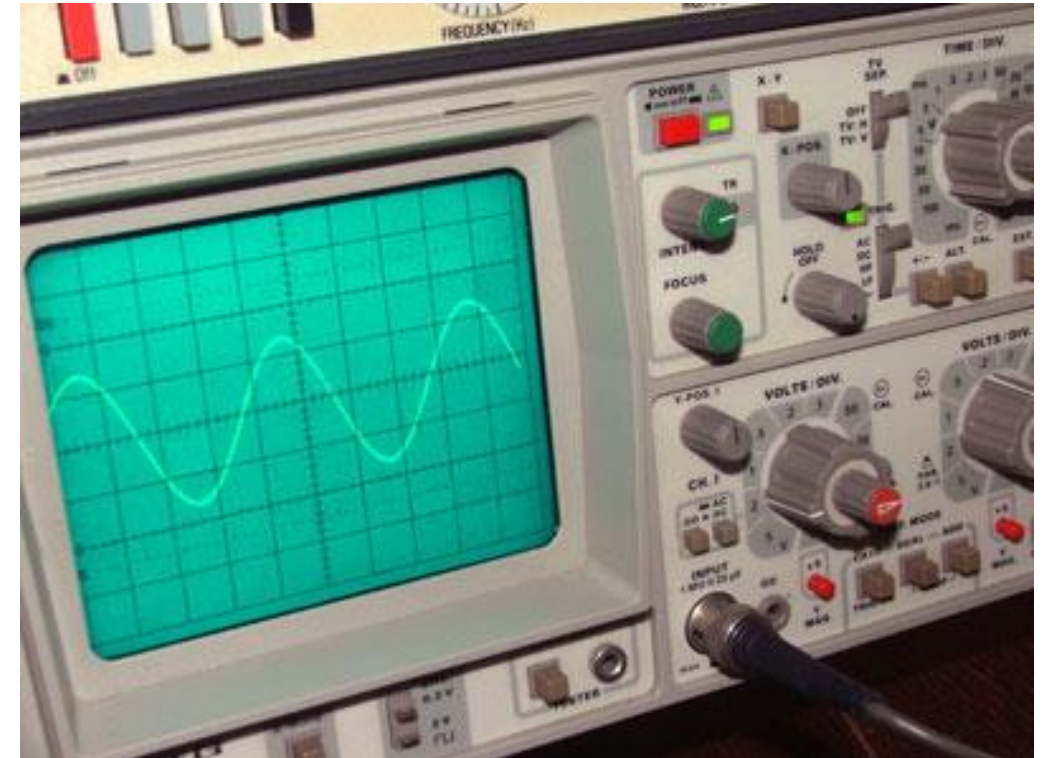
Common Test Signals



$$x(t) = \delta(t) \quad \times \text{ (UNBOUNDED)}$$

$$x(t) = u(t)$$

$$x(t) = \cos(\omega t) \quad \leftarrow$$



LET US GET TO KNOW THIS ONE TODAY



Analyzing the Impulse Response

Since the impulse response $h(t)$ is a complete description of an LTI system, it is helpful to be able to infer BIBO stability from $h(t)$

$$|x(t)| \leq M \text{ BOUNDED} \quad \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |h(t)| dt = L < \infty \text{ BOUNDED}$$

$$|y(t)| = \left| \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) x(t - \tau) d\tau \right| \leq \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |h(\tau) x(t - \tau)| d\tau$$

TRIANGLE INEQUALITY

$$\leq \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |h(\tau)| M d\tau = LM$$

BOUNDED



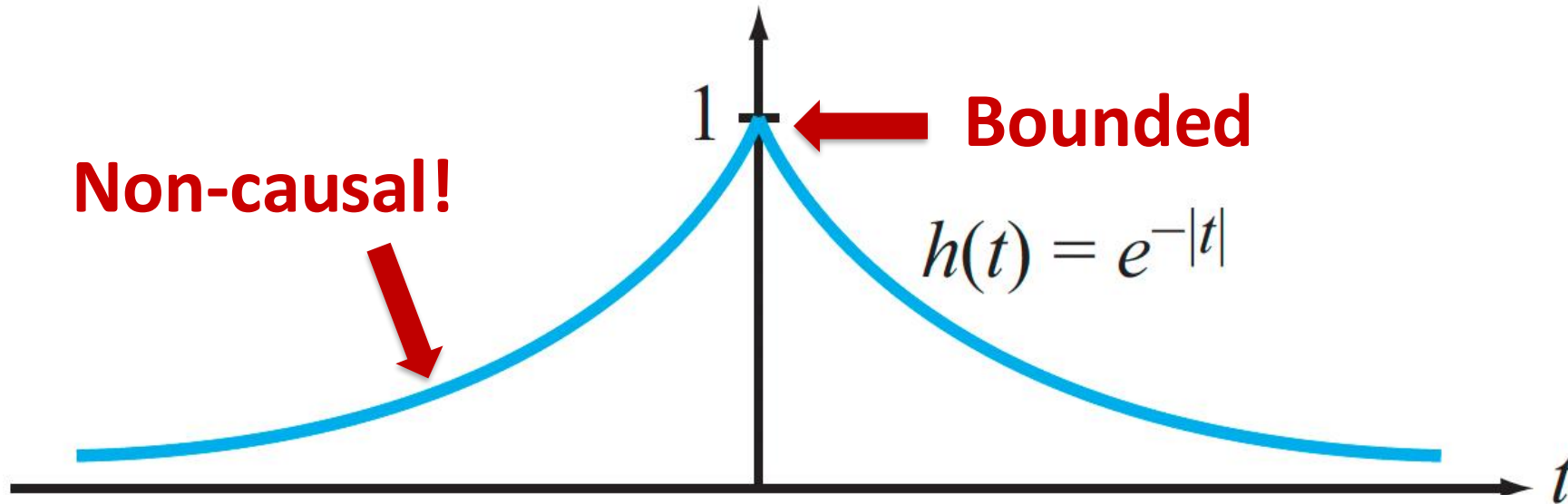
General Theorem

An LTI system is BIBO stable if and only if the impulse response is “absolutely integrable”:

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |h(t)| dt \text{ is finite}$$



Example



$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |h(t)| dt = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} e^{-|t|} dt = 2 \int_0^{\infty} e^{-t} dt = 2. \quad \text{FINITE}$$

Hence, the system is BIBO stable.



Watch the Exponentials

Exponential impulse responses are an important case

$$h(t) = e^{-at}u(t), a > 0 \quad \text{Causal, BIBO stable}$$

$$h(t) = e^{at}u(t), a > 0 \quad \text{Causal, Not BIBO stable!}$$

$$h(t) = e^{j\omega t}u(t) \quad \text{Causal, Not BIBO stable!}$$

$$h(t) = e^{at}u(t), a = 0 \quad \text{Causal, Not BIBO stable!}$$

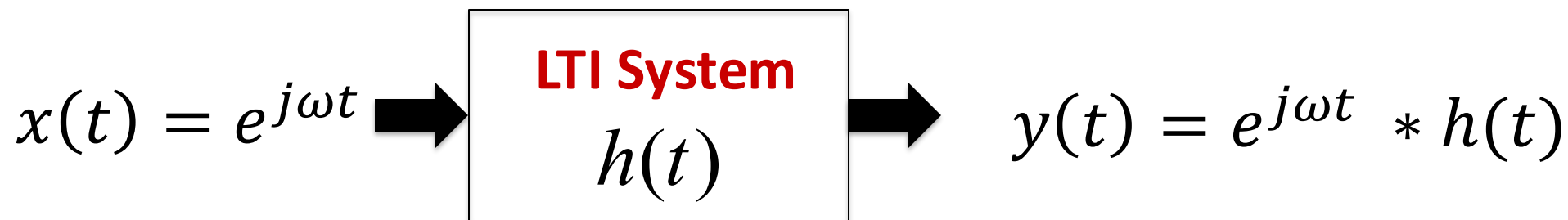
Bottom Line: ONLY the decaying exponential case is BIBO stable



LTI Response to Sinusoids

What happens when we apply a sinusoidal input to a LTI system?

It is easiest to start with the exponential form:



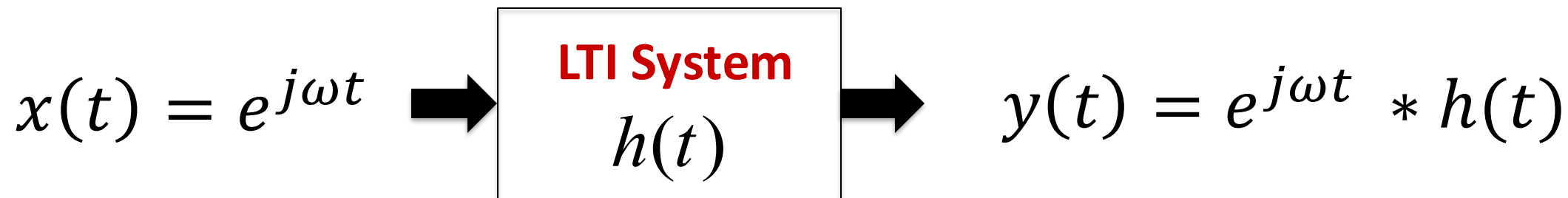
Where ω is the angular frequency in radians per second

The exponential form of the sinusoid $e^{j\omega t}$ is mathematically easier to work with compared to $\cos(\omega t)$ or $\sin(\omega t)$

Remember Euler's Formula: $e^{j\omega t} = \cos(\omega t) + j\sin(\omega t)$



LTI Response to Sinusoids



$$y(t) = e^{j\omega t} * h(t) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) e^{j\omega(t-\tau)} d\tau$$

$$= e^{j\omega t} \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) e^{-j\omega\tau} d\tau = e^{j\omega t} \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)$$

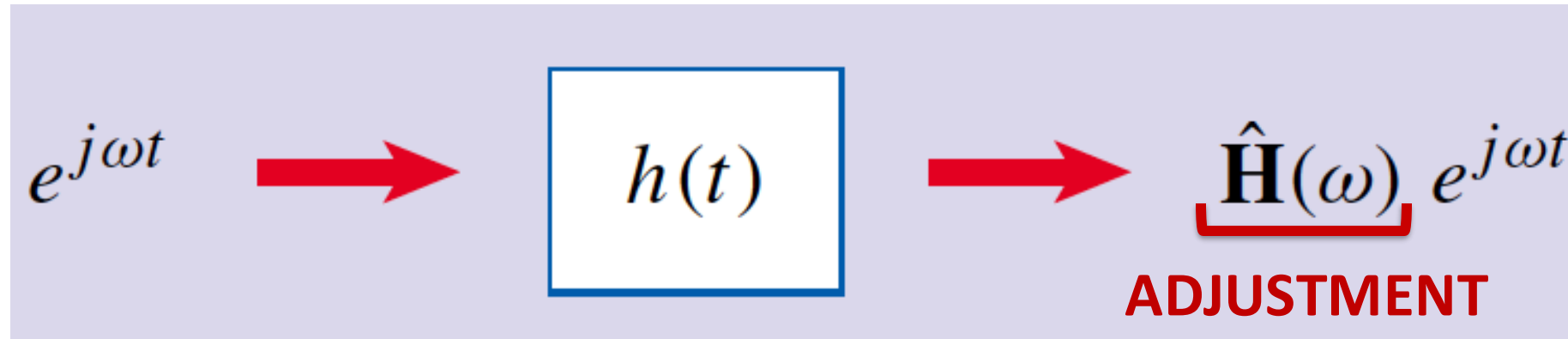
$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) e^{-j\omega\tau} d\tau$$

The Frequency Response Function



Practical Meaning of the Frequency Response

The Frequency Response is a complex quantity, even if $h(t)$ is real



Important observations:

1. The output is also a sinusoid at the same exact frequency ω
2. The amplitude of the output is **adjusted** by $|\hat{H}(\omega)|$, a frequency dependent quantity – magnitude spectrum
3. The phase of the output is **adjusted** by $\theta = \angle \hat{H}(\omega)$, also a frequency dependent quantity – phase spectrum



Valuable Observations

$\hat{H}(\omega)$ is independent of t

$\hat{H}(\omega)$ is a function of $j\omega$, not just ω

$\hat{H}(\omega)$ is defined for all values of ω from $-\infty$ to ∞

If $h(t)$ is real, then,

$\hat{H}(-\omega) = \hat{H}^*(\omega)$ because

$$\hat{H}^*(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h^*(\tau) [e^{-j\omega\tau}]^* d\tau = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) e^{j\omega\tau} d\tau = \hat{H}(-\omega)$$

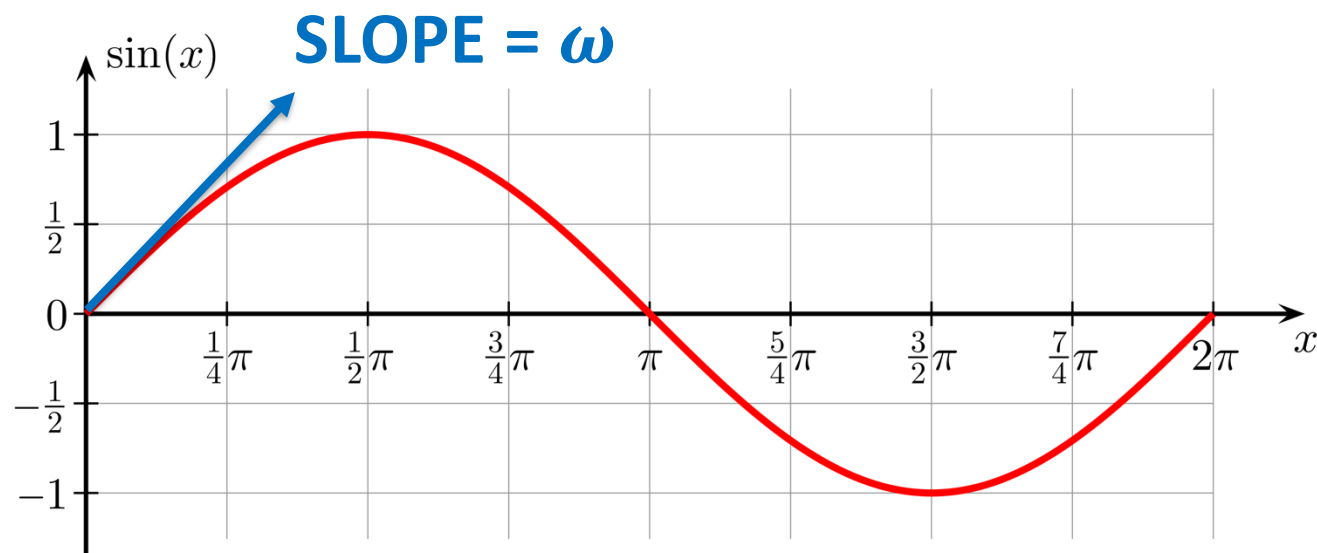
Conjugate Symmetry



Some Intuition

For sinusoids, the concept of frequency is directly tied to the rate of change of the signal

$$\frac{d}{dt}[\sin(\omega t)] = \omega \cos(\omega t)$$

“HIGH FREQUENCY” SIGNALS ARE “FAST CHANGING”



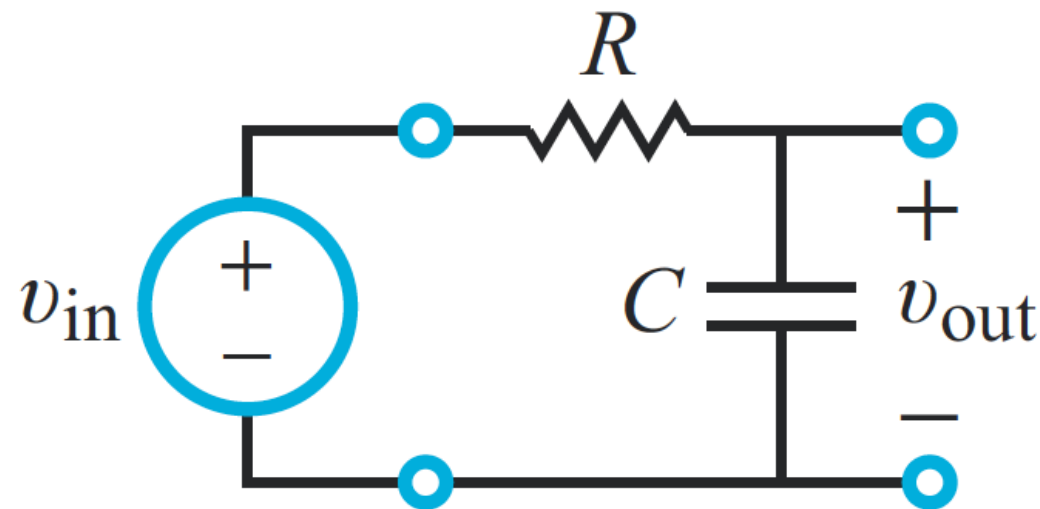
RC Circuit Example

Recall that when $RC = 1$,

$$h(t) = e^{-t}u(t)$$

$$\square \quad \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) e^{-j\omega\tau} d\tau$$

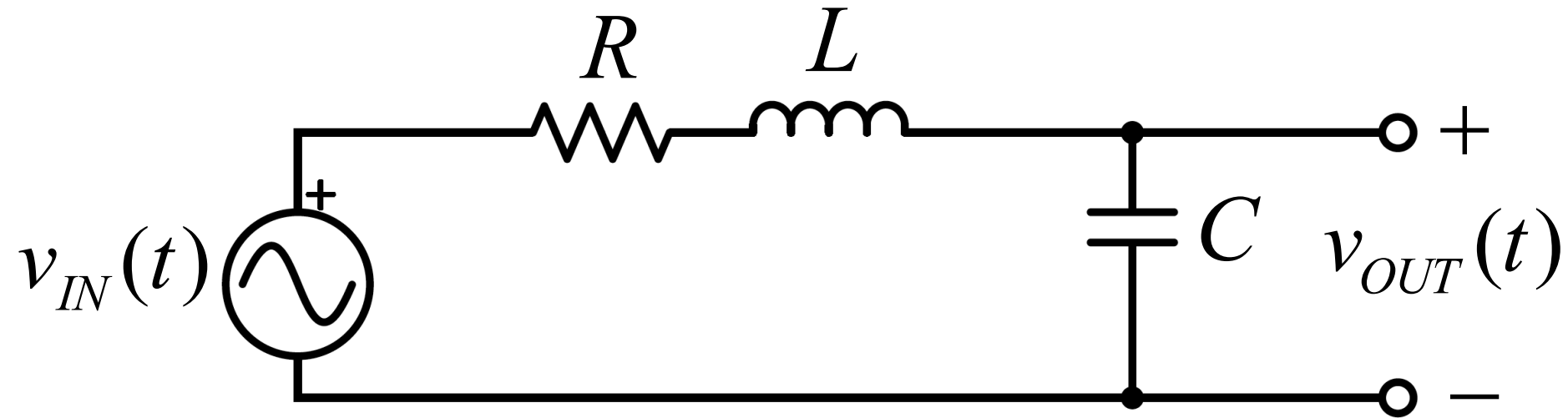
$$= \int_0^{\infty} e^{-\tau} e^{-j\omega\tau} d\tau = \int_0^{\infty} e^{-(1+j\omega)\tau} d\tau = \frac{1}{1+j\omega}$$



THIS CIRCUIT ATTENUATES HIGHER FREQUENCIES BUT PASSES LOW FREQUENCIES – It is a “Low Pass” Filter



RLC Circuit Example



Using KVL, we can show that this circuit behaves according to:

$$v_{IN}(t) = LC \frac{d^2 v_{OUT}(t)}{dt^2} + RC \frac{dv_{OUT}(t)}{dt} + v_{OUT}(t)$$

This is a Linear Constant Coefficient Differential Equation (LCCDE)



LCCDE's

Linear constant-coefficient differential equations (LCCDE's) occur commonly when describing LTI systems

Example:

$$\frac{d^2 y}{dt^2} + 2 \frac{dy}{dt} + 3y = 4 \frac{dx}{dt} + 5x$$

- **These systems are always LTI**
- **For such systems, it is particularly convenient to find the response to a sinusoidal input**
- **It is also very practical, since sinusoids are common and easy to generate**

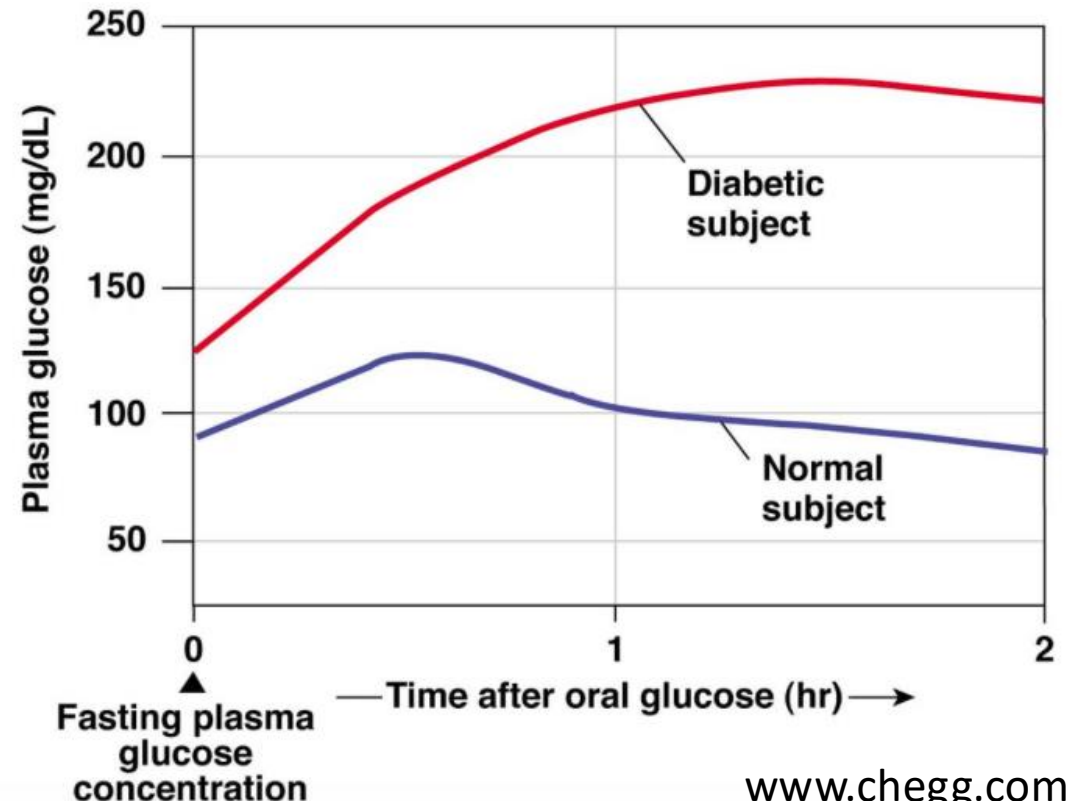


Biomedical LCCDE Example

In a glucose tolerance test (GTT), a patient's baseline blood glucose is measured, and then he/she is given a bolus (~75g) of glucose (~ an impulse)

- The patient's blood glucose concentration above the baseline value, $g(t)$ can be modeled using a 2nd order LCCDE
- The patient-dependent constants β ω_0 can be used for diagnosis, and for controlling medication delivery

$$\frac{d^2 g(t)}{dt^2} + \underset{\substack{\uparrow \\ \text{Patient-dependent constants}}}{\beta} \frac{dg(t)}{dt} + \underset{\substack{\uparrow \\ \text{Glucose Input}}}{\omega_0^2} g(t) = Q(t)$$





Example (contd)

$$\frac{d^2 y}{dt^2} + 2 \frac{dy}{dt} + 3y = 4 \frac{dx}{dt} + 5x$$

$$x(t) = e^{j\omega t}$$

$$y(t) = \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) e^{j\omega t}$$

Keep in mind that:

$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)$ is independent of t

$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) e^{-j\omega\tau} d\tau$$



Example (contd)

$$\frac{d^2 y}{dt^2} + 2 \frac{dy}{dt} + 3y = 4 \frac{dx}{dt} + 5x$$

$$x(t) = e^{j\omega t}$$

$$y(t) = \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) e^{j\omega t}$$

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = j\omega e^{j\omega t}$$

$$\frac{dy}{dt} = j\omega \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) e^{j\omega t}$$

$$\frac{d^2 y}{dt^2} = (j\omega)^2 \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) e^{j\omega t}$$

Differentiating a signal in the time domain translates to a multiplication by $j\omega$ in the frequency domain



Example (contd)

$$\underbrace{\frac{d^2 y}{dt^2}}_{\text{red}} + \underbrace{2 \frac{dy}{dt}}_{\text{green}} + \underbrace{3y}_{\text{blue}} = \underbrace{4 \frac{dx}{dt} + 5x}_{\text{magenta}}$$

Substituting:

$$\underbrace{(j\omega)^2 \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)e^{j\omega t}}_{\text{red}} + \underbrace{2j\omega \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)e^{j\omega t}}_{\text{green}} + \underbrace{3\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)e^{j\omega t}}_{\text{blue}} = \underbrace{4j\omega e^{j\omega t} + 5e^{j\omega t}}_{\text{magenta}}$$

Solve for $\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = \frac{5 + 4j\omega}{-\omega^2 + 2j\omega + 3}$

$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)$ IS A COMPLETE SPECIFICATION OF THE LTI SYSTEM, JUST LIKE $h(t)$



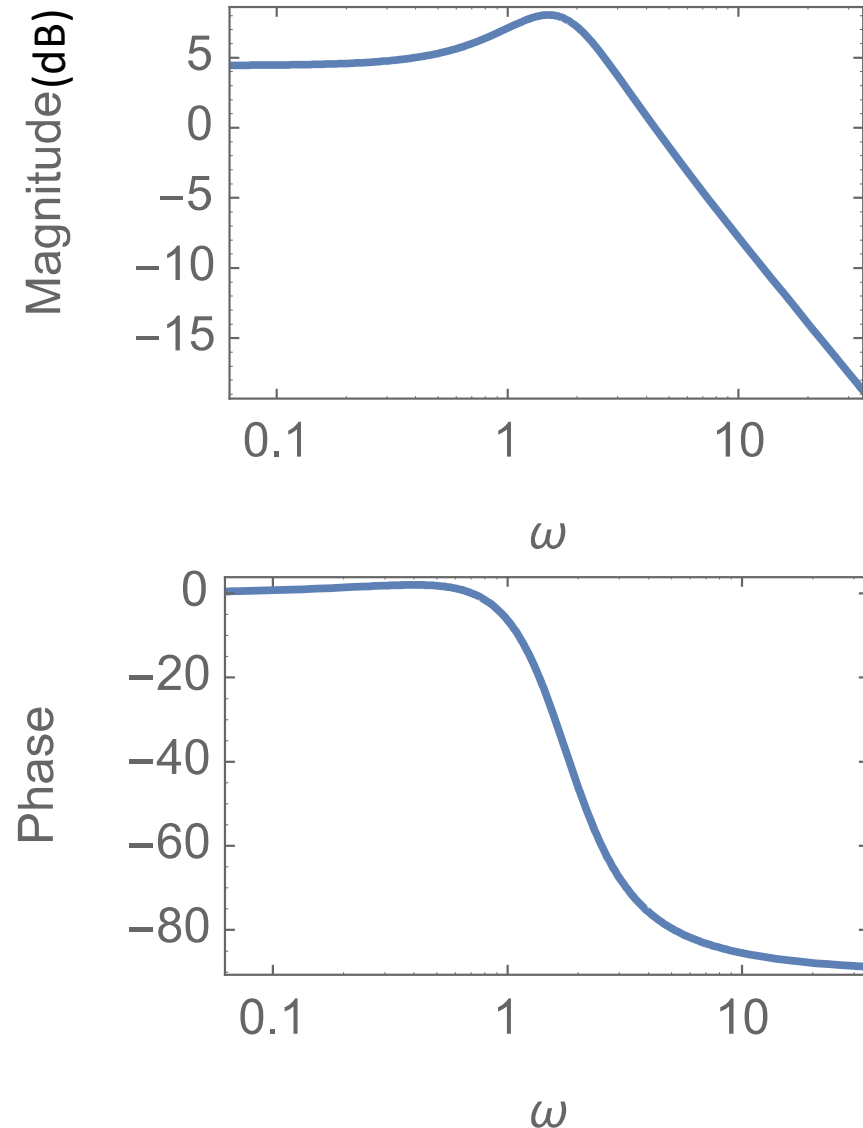
Example (contd)

$$\frac{d^2 y}{dt^2} + 2 \frac{dy}{dt} + 3y = 4 \frac{dx}{dt} + 5x$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = \frac{5 + 4j\omega}{-\omega^2 + 2j\omega + 3}$$

HOW DOES THIS VARY WITH THE FREQUENCY ω ?

- MAGNITUDE PLOT
- PHASE PLOT





Try the Following Example

$$3\frac{d^3y}{dt^3} + 6\frac{dy}{dt} + 4y = 5\frac{dx}{dt}$$

Set: $x(t) = e^{j\omega t}$

$y(t) = \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)e^{j\omega t}$, and solve for $\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)$

Correct Answer:

$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = \frac{5(j\omega)}{4 + 6(j\omega) + 3(j\omega)^3}$$



Working Backwards

Given: $\hat{H}(\omega) = \frac{5(j\omega)}{3(j\omega)^3 + 6(j\omega) + 4}$

We can guess the differential equation that it came from, by simply working backwards:

$$3(j\omega)^3 e^{j\omega t} \hat{H}(\omega) + 6(j\omega) e^{j\omega t} \hat{H}(\omega) + 4 e^{j\omega t} \hat{H}(\omega) = 5(j\omega) e^{j\omega t}$$

Answer: $3 \frac{d^3 y}{dt^3} + 6 \frac{dy}{dt} + 4y = 5 \frac{dx}{dt}$



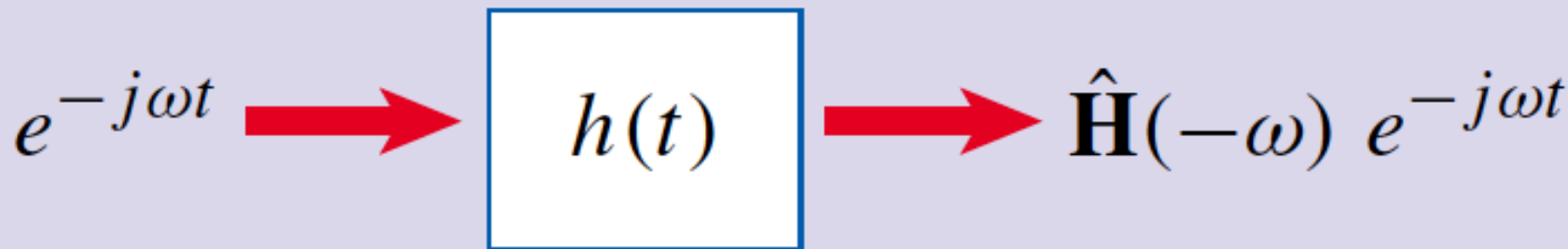
Recap: Euler's Formula

e is called the
“Euler's Number”

$$e^{j\omega_0 t} = \cos(\omega_0 t) + j \sin(\omega_0 t)$$

$$e^{-j\omega_0 t} = \cos(\omega_0 t) - j \sin(\omega_0 t)$$

Realizing just how common sinusoids are, it makes sense to also look at the following result:





LTI Response to Sinusoids

$$x(t) = \cos \omega t = \frac{1}{2} [e^{j\omega t} + e^{-j\omega t}]$$

Using the Additivity property of LTI systems, we see that:

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} \frac{1}{2} e^{j\omega t} & \xrightarrow{\quad} & \boxed{h(t)} & \xrightarrow{\quad} & \frac{1}{2} \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) e^{j\omega t} \\ + & & & & + \\ \frac{1}{2} e^{-j\omega t} & \xrightarrow{\quad} & \boxed{h(t)} & \xrightarrow{\quad} & \frac{1}{2} \hat{\mathbf{H}}(-\omega) e^{-j\omega t} \end{array}$$



Observation

$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(-\omega) = \hat{\mathbf{H}}^*(\omega).$$

Complex Conjugate

$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = |\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)|e^{j\theta},$$

$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(-\omega) = \underbrace{|\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)|}_{\text{Magnitude (unchanged)}} \underbrace{e^{-j\theta}}_{\text{Phase (flipped)}},$$

ONLY THE PHASE CHANGES

Magnitude
(unchanged)

Phase
(flipped)



Cosine Response of LTI Systems

$$y(t) = \frac{1}{2} \left[\hat{H}(\omega) e^{j\omega t} + \hat{H}(-\omega) e^{-j\omega t} \right]$$

$$y(t) = \frac{1}{2} \left| \hat{H}(\omega) \right| \left[e^{j(\omega t + \theta)} + e^{-j(\omega t + \theta)} \right]$$

$$y(t) = \left| \hat{H}(\omega) \right| \cos(\omega t + \theta)$$

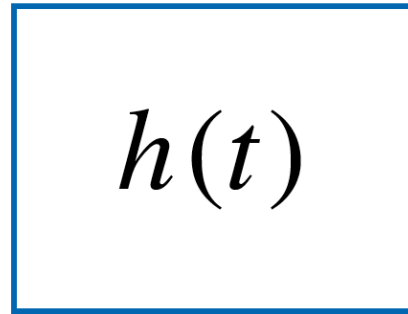
Bottom line: the LTI system response to a cosine function is the magnitude of the transfer function multiplied by a cosine of the same frequency but a different phase (delay).



The Cosine Response of LTI Systems

SINUSOID IN

$\cos \omega t$



SINUSOID OUT
@ SAME FREQUENCY

$\underbrace{|\mathbf{H}(\omega)|}_{\text{Amplitude Change}} \cos(\omega t + \underbrace{\theta}_{\text{Phase Change}})$

Amplitude
Change

Phase
Change

$$\theta = \angle \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)$$



Important Observation

Note that the response of an LTI system to a sinusoid is at the same frequency as the input

- Only the magnitude and phase are altered**
- Corollary:**
 - If a system outputs any new frequencies that are not in the input, then the system is not linear, so no longer LTI**
 - Such systems are said to be “non-linear”**
 - Generally messy to work with, advanced math needed**
 - Can often be approximated with a linear system**
 - Non-linear systems are beyond the scope of this course**



Example #1

Observed LTI system behavior:

$$x(t) = 1 + 2\cos(t) + 3\cos(2t)$$

$$y(t) = 6\cos(t) + 6\cos(2t - 45^\circ)$$

$$\hat{H}(0) = \frac{0}{1} = 0$$

$\omega = 0,$
PHASE = 0°

$$\hat{H}(1) = \frac{6}{2} = 3$$

$\omega = 1,$
PHASE = 0°

$$\hat{H}(2) = \frac{6}{3}e^{-j45^\circ} = 2e^{-j45^\circ}$$

$\omega = 2,$
PHASE = -45°

**WE CANNOT INFER ANYTHING
ABOUT ANY OTHER FREQUENCIES
FROM THE GIVEN DATA**



Example #1 (contd)

Calculate the response of the same LTI system to the following new input:

$$x(t) = 7 + \cos(2t)$$

Correct Answer:

$$y(t) = 0 + 2\cos(2t - 45^\circ)$$



Example #2

Find the output of the following system when $\omega = 4$

$$\frac{dy}{dt} + 3y = 3\frac{dx}{dt} + 5x$$

$$\text{Input: } x(t) = 5 \cos(4t + 30^\circ)$$

Since the input is a sinusoid, it is easier to work with the frequency response function rather than $h(t)$

Step 1: Calculate the frequency response function

$$\hat{H}(\omega) = \frac{5 + 3(j\omega)}{3 + (j\omega)}$$



Example #2

$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = \frac{5 + 3(j\omega)}{3 + (j\omega)}$$

$$\frac{dy}{dt} + 3y = 3\frac{dx}{dt} + 5x$$

$$\text{Input: } x(t) = 5 \cos(4t + 30^\circ)$$

Step 2: Calculate the response when $\omega = 4$

$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(4) = \frac{5 + 3(j4)}{3 + (j4)} = \frac{13e^{j67^\circ}}{5e^{j53^\circ}} = \frac{13}{5}e^{j14^\circ}$$

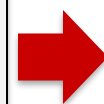
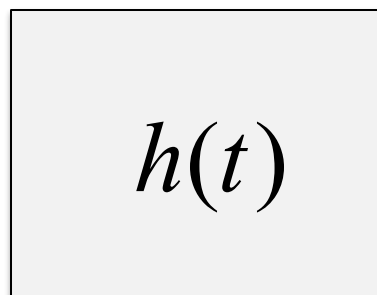
$$y(t) = 5 \square \frac{13}{5} \cos(4t + 30^\circ + 14^\circ)$$



Summary: LTI Response to Sinusoids

SINUSOID IN:

$$x(t) = A \cos(\omega t + \phi)$$



$$y(t) = A \underbrace{|\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)|}_{\text{Amplitude Change}} \cos(\omega t + \phi + \underbrace{\theta}_{\text{Phase Change}})$$

**Amplitude
Change**

**Phase
Change**

$$\theta = \angle \hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega)$$



$$\hat{\mathbf{H}}(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\tau) e^{-j\omega\tau} d\tau$$

Frequency-domain version of $h(t)$

**SAME FREQUENCY
SINUSOID OUT,**

- **CHANGED AMPLITUDE**
- **CHANGED PHASE**



This is a Big Deal

When we get to Chapter 5 (Fourier Transform), we will use this insight to analyze complicated signals

- Complicated signals can be re-written as a sum of sinusoids of different frequencies**
- We can apply this result to each of the sinusoids individually, and add up the responses to calculate the overall response**
- In the lab, we can characterize systems by their frequency response using sinusoidal inputs. This is way more convenient than the impulse or step responses**



For the Next Class

Work through the textbook examples in Sections 2.6 – 2.7

Study Section 2.8 on Zybooks

How to Study:

- 1. Read the assigned sections to understand the basic concepts, and memorize them**
- 2. Attempt the in-chapter exercises and practice until you can do them fully on your own without notes, like in a test**
- 3. Write down your questions and bring them to class**